

A Situational Analysis on How Salespeople Experience and Cope with Shame and Embarrassment

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ABSTRACT

The goal of this article is to explore the role that shame and embarrassment play within an organization boundary-spanning context. For a sample of 458 salespeople selling financial services, measures are developed and hypotheses are tested concerning the effects of shame and embarrassment. The results suggest that the tendency to experience shame and embarrassment in personal selling leads to protective reactions (e.g., avoidance behaviors), and these, in turn, negatively impact performance (e.g., sales volume and quality of sales interaction). Hypotheses are tested on fitting and validation samples, both for salespeople focusing on prospecting tasks and salespeople focusing on relationship building. © 2002 Wiley Periodicals, Inc.

Within the selling area, different kinds of emotions can be distinguished. Some are basic or primitive, such as laughing or expressing positive emotions by smiling, and are responsible for the first five seconds or so of impression making during a sales conversation (Hatfield, Cacioppo, & Rapson, 1994). Some are goal oriented and are responsible for motivating salespeople (e.g., Bagozzi, Baumgartner, & Pieters, 1998;

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Brown, Cron, & Slocum, 1997). Others are self-conscious (hence called SC emotions) and color the quality of interpersonal exchanges (e.g., Fischer & Tangney, 1995). However, researchers within the selling area have not studied SC emotions. The goal of this article is to study how SC emotions affect the way in which salespeople interact with customers.

From the perspective of the circumplex model of emotions, both shame and embarrassment can be conceived as unpleasant and avoidance-inducing emotions (Russell, 1989; Watson & Tellegen, 1989). As salespeople experience a high degree of autonomy and thus are able to organize their own behavioral patterns to a certain extent, it is expected that salespeople will display a wide variety of self-protective and withdrawal reactions (i.e., actions that range from various submissive behaviors, to avoidance actions, to actual removal from sales encounters). Within this context, a further question is asked concerning whether shame and embarrassment responses differ across prospecting versus relationship-building activities, two common tasks differentiating sales roles in many organizations.

The article is organized as follows. First, a theoretical discussion considers how SC emotions apply in the personal selling context. Next, an analysis is made about how salespeople respond to their felt SC emotions and how this impacts performance. Included in the presentation is a discussion of the moderating effects of type of selling (prospecting versus relationship building) on the impact of SC emotions on protective actions. The method of the research is then presented, followed by the results and an interpretation of findings.

SELF-CONSCIOUS EMOTIONS IN PERSONAL SELLING

SC emotions, like other emotions, share the property that they tend to be triggered more or less automatically and are subject to different degrees of self-control once they are activated (Frijda, 1986; LeDoux, 1996; Lewis, 2000). To a certain extent, emotions have a compelling character and if not controlled can have dysfunctional consequences for the person experiencing them (e.g., Brief, 1998, calls this "leaky attitudes"). For instance, a salesperson who cannot control his/her own emotions and becomes overly aroused, angry, anxious, or despondent may make a customer feel uncomfortable and question the credibility of the salesperson (Rafaeli & Sutton, 1987).

SC emotions involve a group of concerns that go beyond both the expression of primitive emotions (e.g., smiling, facial expressions) and goal-attainment emotions (e.g., hope, fear), because they reflect how social events in which the person is involved relate to the evaluation of oneself as worthy or unworthy. When experiencing shame, a person signifies that he or she is concerned with another person's evaluation,

which allows him or her to come up with appropriate behavioral responses (Barret, 1995). Hence, the additional label of “social emotions” for these reactions (Fischer & Tangney, 1995).

SC emotions involve standards of worthy behaviors, such as performing a task properly, ways of dressing, bodily concerns, speaking tactfully, or having a specific social or cultural background. Positive evaluations with regard to this self-standard lead to emotions such as pride and self-respect; negative evaluations lead to emotions such as shame, guilt, and embarrassment (Fischer & Tangney, 1995, p. 8). As salespeople must interact with customers on specific issues, as well as more generally build and maintain relationships, questions like, “Will my actions be appreciated by these different people?” and “What will the customer think of me?” become especially pertinent ones. If a salesperson can become socially accepted by the customer, trust might emerge, and consequently, long-term positive relations might develop (e.g., Crosby, Evans, & Cowles, 1990). Thus, SC emotions suggest a “looking-glass self”—the self that one perceives others see (Cooley, 1902). The looking-glass self causes one to step back from the self as agent and to evaluate the self as object, and thus helps one elaborate and/or modify one’s view of the self (Barret, 1995). From a sales perspective, one could say that SC emotions urge the sales person to take a closer look at his or her adaptive resources and plan one’s ways of interacting with the customer (Weitz, 1981).

One interpretation of the emerging literature on SC emotions in psychology can be summarized as follows (e.g., Fischer & Tangney, 1995; Lewis, 1992). SC emotions start with an initial failure of an expectation (e.g., saying something that is perceived strange or wrong by another person) that will evoke an appraisal of the situation. If the action or situation is perceived as being inappropriate within a social situation or does not match the person’s expectations, a number of reactions are likely. The person will first process the event for affective meaning, especially making an appraisal from the perspective of the self. This could lead to a positive evaluation in regard to self-standards, such as pride, or a negative evaluation, such as shame. Note that appraisals can be conscious or unconscious (Lazarus, 1991). Related to this is the fact that people will often also appraise to what extent any negative feelings can be improved (i.e., to what extent a coping response might be called for). For instance, if the situation can be rectified, it might lead to guilt; or if it can be escaped, it might lead to shame (Fischer & Tangney, 1995).

SC emotions are especially characterized by action tendencies (i.e., “a readiness to engage in or disengage from interaction with some goal object” which includes “(i)mpulses of ‘moving towards’, ‘moving away’, and ‘moving against,’” Frijda, Kuipers, & ter Schure, 1989, p. 213). Action tendencies are often preemptive, and take priority in the control of action and thought. First, there are physiological changes such as changes in heart rate, facial expressions, vocalizations, and posture.

These physiological changes amplify actions and also make the person's emotions visible to other people. Second, there are effects on attention and judgments, such as a bias toward detecting specific kinds of communication signals. Through this, people may pay attention to certain social stimuli over others. In extreme cases, as emotions take control over the interactive behaviors of the salesperson, they may not always be adaptive (flexible) and effective.

When SC emotions occur, it is likely that the salesperson will lose an opportunity to respond accurately and feel some lowered self-esteem and regret. As a consequence, the salesperson might develop emotions about emotions (e.g., being angry about being ashamed), as well as experience ruminations ("Do I fit the job?" and "Will they ever accept me?"). A common form of rumination is manifest as an exploration of how one can adapt to similar situations in the future. One of the adaptive responses might be the avoidance of situations that cause shame or embarrassment (e.g., "Customer Y is so unpleasant and demeaning that I will not make a sales call today."). These types of reactions have been called *protective actions* (also termed *second order coping* by Lazarus, 1991), which are known to limit the adaptive resources of a salesperson (Weitz, 1981). It is exactly here that dysfunctional behaviors might arise.

Salespeople, like any other employee, are agents of their organizations and are expected to undertake specific behaviors on behalf of their organizations (Eisenhardt, 1989). That is, they have to expand their accounts, pose pointed questions, or match the customer's need to open up in order to make a sale (e.g., informal or personal subjects are sometimes topics of sales conversations). When a salesperson develops avoidance coping strategies or protective actions as a consequence of intense SC emotions, which are learned over time, he or she might avoid informal topics during a social encounter, avoid situations that cause embarrassment, or seek contact with customers they already know and who have already accepted one's values and behaviors, rather than with new customers. The typical selling situation introduces conflicts. On the one hand, existing customers sometimes have a need to talk about informal and personal topics. But this can enhance the chances that self-conscious issues will be raised. On the other hand, salespeople are also required to pursue new customers in prospecting efforts. But interacting with new people entails uncertainties and can result in increased opportunities for self-consciousness-inducing episodes. In either case, dealing with existing or new customers, approach-avoidance conflicts are likely for salespeople. To the extent that avoidance behaviors are engaged in, the salesperson might, in turn, receive negative evaluations by customers and consequently perform less well.

Recent research suggests that SC and fear-related emotions are governed by unique neural systems in the brain (LeDoux, 1996). For instance, embarrassment always involves the prefrontal cortex, as well as

the sympathetic and parasympathetic nervous systems. Although a person can become conscious of the outcome of one's thoughts, concomitant physiological reactions, and other people's reactions to one's responses, research shows that people are not aware of the actual thought processes (Nisbett & Wilson, 1977), which makes it difficult for the person experiencing the SC emotions to verbalize his or her experiences. In many cases, the person who is "one's own harshest critic" and is sensitive to other's evaluations (e.g., fear of negative evaluations) shows these kinds of responses more than the person who is not (Tangney, Miller, Flicker, & Barlow, 1996). In other words, some people are more prone to develop SC emotions than others. The following examines two common SC emotions—shame and embarrassment—in greater detail.

Shame

Shame is an emotion that reflects a person's realization that his or her own intentional way of behaving during an interaction goes against the *core self* (i.e., "What kind of person do I want to be in society or a business environment?"). To some extent, shame has moral implications ("Will these people, given their moral standards, accept my behavior?," Buss, 1986). Because shame is concerned with a person's core self, it is sometimes called an intense emotion, and might occur over relatively long periods of time (e.g., a person might be intensely ashamed for days about one's own failures). It also happens, when a person feels shame frequently or intensely, that feelings of regret and depression arise (Fischer & Tangney, 1995; Tangney, Wagner, Fletcher, & Gramzow, 1992).

When a shame reaction occurs, the following psychological processes typically occur. Shame involves a heightened realization that one's behaviors or results are not in accordance with the standards of people in one's social environment. As people like to maintain respect and/or affection from others, as well as positive self-regard, there is a tendency that the actor will sense that his or her self-esteem has been damaged (Barret, 1995). The salesperson implicitly concludes, "I am a bad person or an incompetent person." Shame can occur in response to one's own past actions as well as in anticipation of possible actions. When a person has a low self-regard, he or she may look for possibilities to cope with this state. If a situation can be potentially escaped, a person may seek to hide or at least avoid bringing up damaging topics or behaviors. The body then prepares for action, especially through physiological changes, which take place in the parasympathetic nervous system. Shame has visible reactions, which include a lowered heart rate, a lowered voice level, and blushing. The parasympathetic nervous system also affects the attention of the person. People who are ashamed perceive that other

people are watching them more intensely and therefore become even more highly self-conscious (Fischer & Tangney, 1995): "The customer thinks I am bad and is looking at me judgmentally."

Embarrassment

Embarrassment differs from shame in that it is a reactive response arising from relatively trivial and sometimes humorous events, which already have occurred and emerged suddenly (acutely) with a sense of surprise (e.g., passing gas or suddenly forgetting something important in a sales encounter). Nevertheless, embarrassment is a powerful and pervasive force in human interaction, as attested to by comments in the literature made by Miller and Leary (1992, p 210): "the possibility of being embarrassed seems to dictate and constrain a great deal of social behavior; much of what we do, and perhaps more importantly what we don't do, is based on our desire to avoid embarrassment."

Embarrassment results from deficiencies of one's presented self (as opposed to the core self under shame) and implies feelings of foolishness and awkwardness (Miller, 1996). Shame occurs to people who are alone or in public; embarrassment only occurs in public. For instance, an inappropriate joke made in front of a customer matters much more in public than when contemplated alone. Because the response is so sudden, most descriptions of embarrassment are about the stimuli or situations that cause the response. Embarrassment is a reactive response and is therefore sometimes called an on-off reaction.

There are two kinds of embarrassment responses that are important. First, there are embarrassment responses caused by the salesperson him- or herself and which directly threaten the presented self. Second, there are embarrassment responses caused by another person (e.g., by the customer). For example, it is often embarrassing for a person to find him or herself in the presence of people who exceed social or moral norms, particularly in public (e.g., being told racist or sexist jokes).

Once embarrassment occurs, the on-off reactions are manifest in two parts of the autonomic nervous system: the sympathetic nervous system (the person feels the urge to flee) and the parasympathetic nervous system (the person feels like freezing) (Leary, 1991). In most cases these responses are short lived, yet they have a limiting effect on the adaptive abilities of a salesperson, particularly in face to face negotiations. Typical symptoms are a sheepish grim, a tilt of the head, and displays of looking up or down, averting eye contact, or looking off in the distance. When people have an embarrassment reaction, they are expressing a form of sympathy (Miller, 1996). Customers then may initially sense that the salesperson is being sensitive to the customer's norms, values, or needs. But over time, because embarrassing situations happen frequently and go together with negative feelings, a salesperson might come to avoid situations that become too embarrassing to him or her.

In such cases, the embarrassment causes the salesperson to become less attentive and active and therefore less productive.

HYPOTHESES

Embarrassment and shame are, as Tangney and Fischer (1995, p. 8) would argue, two SC-emotions that “are often pre-emptive, in that they take top priority in the control of action and thought.” They are affective responses that draw a person’s attention to the significance of the experience (Barret, 1996). As a consequence of embarrassment a salesperson realizes that his or her behaviors are not fitting well within the norms of the social situation, and in the case of shame a person realizes that he or she as a person does not belong to a specific group. In this regard, Keltner and Haidt (1999) suggest that SC-emotions help a person to define and negotiate group-related roles and statuses. In the case of embarrassment a salesperson will at least not seek to take further risks that might cause further embarrassment. But once embarrassed in a particular situation, salespeople will undertake even more efforts to avoid further embarrassment by not taking any risks. Some researchers like Gilbert (1998) conceive of shame as a sign of deference, that is by being ashamed a person openly accepts that he or she will seek to submit actions that are in accordance with the norms of the group, and rather than acting as an assertive person, they will seek to take a passive or even avoidant stance during a sales conversation. In short, both embarrassment and shame cause salespeople to lower their adaptive resources and so seek to engage in protective actions. Needless to say, lowered assertiveness tends to reduce the chances of success. In sum, the following hypothesis is made:

- H1:** The greater the felt embarrassment and shame, the greater the likelihood of protective actions. Likewise, the greater the incidence of protective actions, the less the performance.

Consistent with appraisal theories of emotions (e.g., Lazarus, 1991; Oatley, 1992), it is proposed that protective actions, a form of emotional coping responses, fully mediate the effects of embarrassment and shame on performance. Thus, Figure 1 summarizes the central model tested in this study. This model will be tested with structural equation procedures and comparisons made between results for fitting and validation samples.

Within sales contexts, some salespeople mainly do prospecting (these salespeople are sometimes called *out salespersons*), whereas others sell primarily to those customers with whom relationships have already been established (*in salespersons*; Ingram, LaForge, & Schwegker, 1997; Weitz, Castleberry, & Tanner, 1992). Churchill, Ford, and Walker

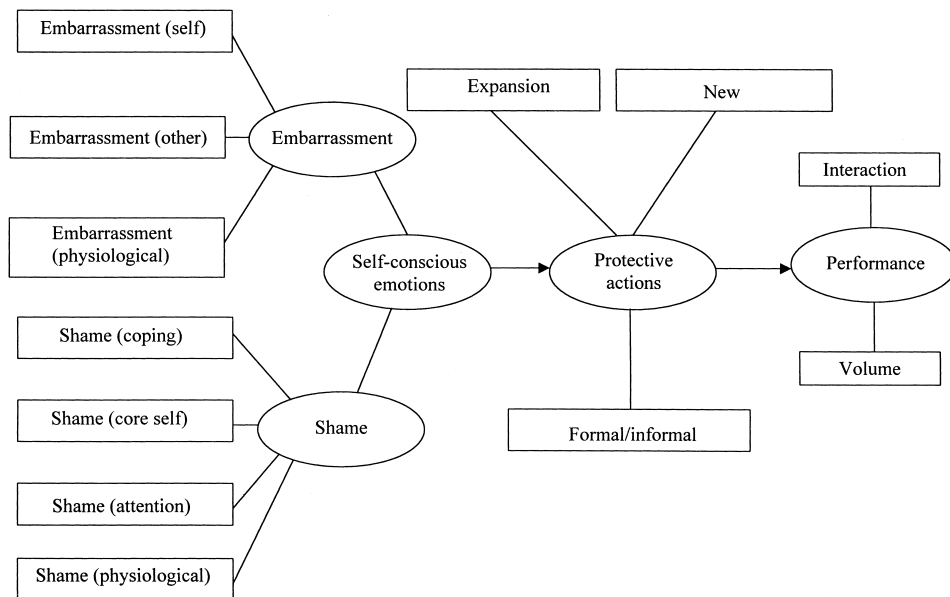


Figure 1. Summary of Effects of Self-Conscious Emotions

(1993) suggest that prospecting is “one of the most disheartening aspects of selling . . . prospecting efforts are often met with rejection, and immediate payoffs are usually minimal . . . ” (pp. 42–43).

What accounts for these disheartening feelings? Two main characteristics of prospecting are relevant for SC emotions. First, when people meet for the first time with others, they tend to make one another more conscious about themselves (Miller, 1996, p. 44). Thus for a small transgression, sales people might become easily embarrassed during prospecting. Similarly, when a person notices that he or she differs in some way from newly met people, their experience of shame might intensify. In short, meeting with strangers amplifies a person’s looking-glass self. In addition, salespeople realize that during initial contact that they have a small window of opportunity to make a good impression on customers. Such conditions tend to make salespeople wary of small transgressions and become overly protective and conservative rather than assertive. A number of researchers have stressed the importance of first impressions in personal selling (e.g., Spiro, Perreault, & Reynolds, 1977; Webster, 1965). Second, for prospecting, the likelihood of rejection is greater than for long-term relationships. The possibility of being rejected makes a sales person highly self-conscious; consequently, a conservative protective orientation may be fostered rather than a bold assertive one.

In the case of ongoing relationships, when salespeople meet with established customers, they typically let down their guards and are less interested in carefully regulating the impressions they make during a

conversation (Miller, 1996). This is not to say that embarrassment or shame will not occur in ongoing relationships. Rather, it is claimed that it will occur less frequently, because salespeople will not enter transactions with the overly protective orientations adopted in prospecting contexts. When salespeople do experience shame or embarrassment with customers in ongoing relationships, it is expected that they will be better able to overcome their negative effects. Thus the following hypothesis is given:

- H2:** The strength of the relationship between embarrassment and shame, on the one hand, and protective actions, on the other hand, will be stronger for salespeople engaged primarily in prospecting than salespeople involved primarily with building ongoing relationships.

Hypothesis 2 implies an interaction between the SC emotions and type of selling. This interaction will be tested by use of multiple group procedures with structural equation models.

METHODOLOGY

Sampling

A total of seven financial organizations in the Netherlands agreed to participate in the study. These firms sell financial services such as insurance, mortgages, and bank accounts. The sales personnel are typically called financial advisors, mortgage advisors, or insurance advisors, depending in which subdivision they worked. With all firms, it was agreed that the questionnaire would be distributed to all salespeople.

A total of 650 questionnaires was sent to salespeople. The questionnaires were printed in three different orders of questions to avoid carryover effects (Bickart, 1993). As an incentive, each salesperson was given the equivalent of about \$5. Also, management in each firm sent a letter endorsing the study and asking for cooperation. It was stressed, however, that the study was being conducted by university professors and that all responses would be managed by them and would be held in strictest confidence. Five weeks after the initial mailing, a reminder was sent, and in total 74 percent ($N = 483$) of the questionnaires were returned. Of the returned questionnaires, 25 were incomplete and could not be used. Therefore, a sample of 458 was used for data analyses. The sample has four salient characteristics:

1. The majority of salespersons are male (88.8%); this gender composition in the business world is typical in Europe (e.g., Hofstede, Neuijen, Ohavy, & Sanders, 1990; Singh, Verbeke, & Rhoads, 1996).

2. The ages of salespersons are spread among the following age groups: ≤ 30 (41%), 31–40 (22%), 41–50 (23%), and > 50 (14%).
3. The salespeople are by Dutch standards relatively well educated: 25% have a university degree, 27% have completed high school, and the others have some higher practical education.
4. About 43% of the salespeople are engaged in prospecting, and 57% are involved primarily in relationship selling (see measures below).

Development of the Scales

In order to construct a pool of items for the SC emotions scales, focus-group interviews were organized, and several tests were administered in stages, as suggested by DeVellis (1991). First, definitions for embarrassment and shame were created and these definitions were employed as a framework to direct the focus-group interviews. During the first focus-group interview, salespeople were asked to imagine what takes place in a sales context when they experience SC emotions. In subsequent focus-group interviews, the potential items were collected in a pool, once more screened, and refined further. In addition to the use of focus groups, items were generated by use of the literature in psychology (e.g., Keltner & Buswell, 1997; Miller & Tangney, 1994; Tangney et al., 1996).

Questions presented on the final questionnaire followed guidelines gleaned from previous research (see the Appendix). The embarrassment questions were introduced with the following instruction, which attempted to put the salesperson in the place of a person exposed to a sudden, unanticipated event: "When something quite unexpected occurs during a sales encounter (e.g., I upset a cup of coffee or the client uses vulgar or profane language), the following experiences occur in me: . . ." Example responses include, "I feel stupid," "I blush," and "I fall silent." The shame questions were introduced with the following scenario, which attempted to convey the idea that customers may signal or say something unfavorable about the salesperson: "During the sales encounter, it sometimes happens that clients say or signal something that is critical of me (e.g., I may be criticized for making a personal error). At such a moment, . . ." Example responses include, "I would die of shame," "I would feel helpless," "I would believe that I am an unsuccessful person," and "I believe that the client knows what I am feeling." The protective actions questions suggested that during a conversation with a client one should not do certain things. The items were introduced with the words, "During a sales encounter, it happens that . . ." Example items include, "I do not dare ask about private matters of the client," "I do not dare make small talk," and "I do not dare ask if the client wants to buy yet another product from our collec-

tion.” The above-mentioned manner of asking questions with SC emotions has been used frequently by psychologists (e.g., Leary, 1991). This is done because it is both impractical and unethical to manipulate emotions, and the use of scenarios, as done in the current study, has been found to be an effective alternative (e.g., Roseman, 1991). Responses to each item were recorded on 7-point “totally disagree” to “totally agree” scales.

The potential scale items were exploratory factor analyzed, with the use of maximum-likelihood procedures with oblimin oblique rotation by SPSS. Next, the statistical properties of the scales were investigated. First, the data were split randomly into a test set ($N = 268$) and a validation set ($N = 189$), maintaining a 60:40 split commonly used for such purposes (e.g., Singh & Rhoads, 1991). By means of an exploratory factor analysis, the different dimensions of the SC emotions scales were analyzed to assess their unidimensionality and factor structure. Items that did not satisfy the following criteria were deleted. Four rules were applied:

1. Items should have a communality higher than 0.3.
2. Dominant loadings should be greater than .50.
3. Cross-loadings should be lower than 0.25.
4. The scree plot criterion should be satisfied (e.g., Briggs & Cheek, 1986).

These rules are often applied to factor analyses in order to refine scales (DeVellis, 1991). Next, the reliabilities of dimensions of each scale were assessed by means of the Cronbach alpha coefficient. Following Nunnally (1978), it is desirable that measures of each dimension achieve an alpha greater than or equal to 0.70.

Analyses of the Dimensions of the Two SC Emotions, Protective Actions, and Performance

Embarrassment. The exploratory factor analysis ($KMO = 0.88$) of the embarrassment items revealed the presence of three dimensions (explaining 32%, 14%, and 8% of the variance, respectively): (a) bodily sensations and responses (e.g., looking away from a person), (b) self origins of embarrassment (e.g., forgetting the name of the customer), and (c) customer origins of embarrassment (e.g., the customer makes an off-color joke). The reliabilities for the respective dimensions of embarrassment were 0.88, 0.87, and 0.76. See Appendix for a rough translation of all items used in this study.

Shame. The exploratory analysis of the shame items ($KMO = 0.90$) revealed the presence of four dimensions (explaining 38%, 11%, 8%, and

6% of the variance, respectively): (a) belief that the core self is threatened (e.g., believing that one is an unsuccessful person), (b) attempts to cope with the threat (e.g., feeling the urge to flinch), (c) physiological responses (e.g., blushing), and (d) self-focused attention that others are looking at every detail (e.g., “customers know what I think”). The reliabilities for the respective dimensions of shame were 0.90, 0.89, 0.80, and 0.85.

Protective Actions. The exploratory factor analysis ($KMO = 0.92$) of the protective actions items revealed the presence of three dimensions (explaining 48%, 8%, and 7% of the variance, respectively): (a) the inability to switch from formal to informal topics and vice versa, (b) looking and asking for new business or visiting new customers, and (c) expanding business. The reliabilities for the respective dimensions of protective actions were 0.81, 0.85, and 0.72.

Performance. The exploratory factor analysis ($KMO = 0.88$) of performance items, which were drawn from Behrman and Perreault (1984), revealed two factors (explaining 43% and 11% of the variance, respectively). The two factors reflect intuitive components of performance: sales volume and quality of sales interaction or communication. The reliabilities for these respective dimensions were 0.85 and 0.79.

Canvassing. This concept was assessed with the following question: “What percent of your time do you spend with customers in maintaining ongoing relationships (as opposed to canvassing)?” When the salespeople spent 61% or more of their time with relationships, rather than canvassing, they were designated as *relationship salespeople*, whereas when they spent 39% of their time or less in relationship building, they were designated *prospecting salespeople*. This basis for division was one suggested in interviews with managers in the qualitative phase of the study.

Structural Equation Model

Figure 2 presents the structural-equation model for testing hypotheses. The key hypotheses are shown in the center, where self-conscious emotions $\rightarrow$ protective actions $\rightarrow$ performance outcomes. Notice that each of the three variables embedded in the above hypotheses is represented as a higher-order latent variable. Self-conscious emotions (η_{10}) is, in fact, a third-order latent variable, which is indicated by the two second-order latent variables, embarrassment (η_8) and shame (η_9). As described above, embarrassment is further divided into three components, which constitute the first-order factors physiological (η_1), self (η_2), and other (η_3) focused embarrassment. Similarly, shame is comprised of four first-order components: coping (η_4), physiological (η_5), core self (η_6), and at-

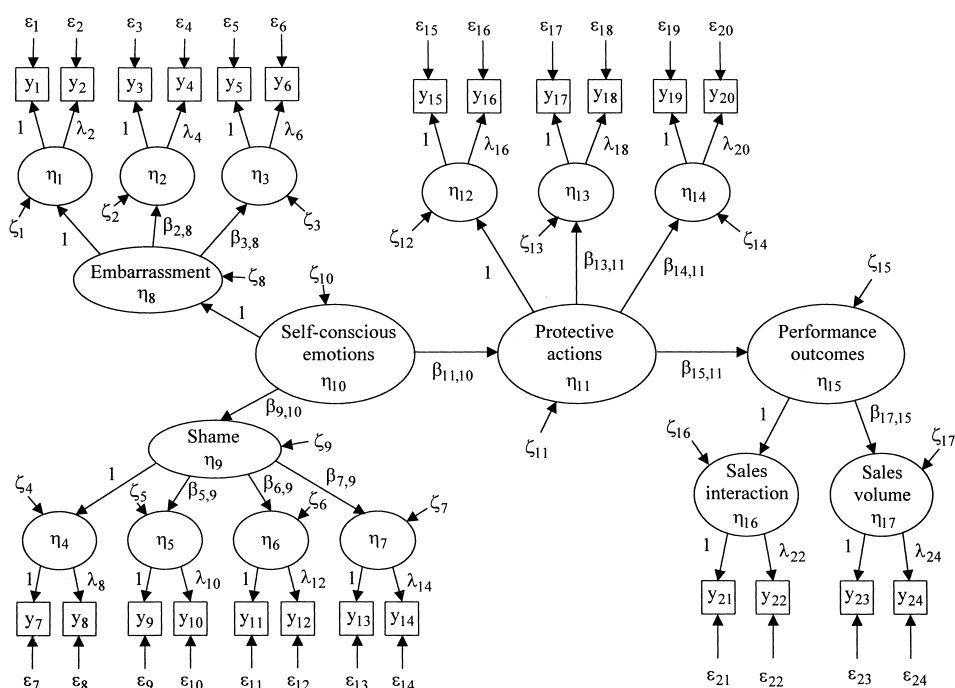


Figure 2. Structural Equation Model for Test of Hypotheses

tention (η_7) shame. Each first-order factor, in turn, is shown indicated by two observed variables throughout the model in Figure 2. The observed variables are constructed as averages of individual items, where each is chosen to represent half or approximately half of the items as suggested by the exploratory factor analyses, depending on the number of items (even or odd) per dimension (Bagozzi & Edwards, 1998).

Likewise, protective actions, a second-order latent variable (η_{11}), has three first-order components: (a) formal/informal switching (η_{12}), (b) expansion (η_{13}), and (c) new business (η_{14}). Finally, performance outcomes (η_{15}) are shown with two components: sales interaction (η_{16}) and sales volume (η_{17}) results.

To test the model in Figure 2, LISREL8 was used (Jöreskog & Sörbom, 1996). The goodnesses of fit of the models were assessed with the chi-square test, the comparative fit index (CFI), the noncentralized normed fit index (NNFI), and the root mean-square error of approximation (RMSEA). Satisfactory fits are obtained when the chi-square test is non-significant, but given the dependence of the chi-square test on sample size, and the need for fit indices normed from 0 to 1, other indices are needed as well. Good fits are obtained when the CFI and NNFI are greater than or equal to 0.90 and the RMSEA is less than or equal to 0.08. Further discussion of goodness-of-fit issues can be found in Bentler (1990), Marsh, Balla, & Hau (1996), and Steiger (1990). It should be pointed out that the NNFI and RMSEA indices reward model parsimony

and penalize model complexity, which the chi-square and CFI indicators do not.

To formally compare the fitting and validation samples and test for generalizability, the following chi-square difference tests were employed. First, to test for invariance of first-order factor loadings across samples, the chi squares for the baseline model (i.e., the model in Figure 2 applied to both samples and formed as the sum of chi squares) are compared to the chi-square for the model where loadings across samples are constrained to equal each other. Second, given invariant factor loadings, groups of higher-order factor loadings were sequentially constrained to be equal across samples, where the groups were defined by each appropriate level in the hierarchy. Finally, with all factor loadings shown to be invariant, tests of the key causal paths shown in Figure 2 (i.e., $\beta_{11,10}$ and $\beta_{15,11}$) were conducted. All analyses were performed on the covariance matrices as input (e.g., Cudeck, 1989).

RESULTS

Test of Model in Figure 2 for Fitting and Validation Samples

As expected, the baseline multiple sample analysis demonstrates that, although the chi-square test is significant (i.e., $\chi^2(474) = 845.25, p \cong .00$), the other three goodness-of-fit measures suggest that the fitting and validation sample data both correspond well to the model in Figure 2: RMSEA = .04, NNFI = .94, and CFI = .94.

Table 1 presents the structural parameter estimates and R^2 values. Notice first that the first-, second-, and third-order factor loadings are all relatively high in magnitude and statistically significant. This suggests that the proposed indicators of the factors implied by the hierarchical structure are good measures of their hypothesized latent variables. Next, notice that SC emotions have significant positive effects on protective actions in the fitting ($\beta_{11,10} = 0.37$, s.e. = 0.03, $\beta_{11,10}^{\text{std}} = 0.71$) and validation ($\beta_{11,10} = 0.37$, s.e. = 0.03, $\beta_{11,10}^{\text{std}} = 0.73$) samples, as hypothesized. Likewise, protective actions lead to decrements in performance in the fitting ($\beta_{15,11} = -0.47$, s.e. = 0.08, $\beta_{15,11}^{\text{std}} = -0.44$) and validation ($\beta_{15,11} = -0.86$, s.e. = 0.11, $\beta_{15,11}^{\text{std}} = -0.67$) samples, as predicted. The explained variances in protective actions were 0.50 and 0.53, respectively, in the fitting and validation samples; while the explained variances in performance were 0.19 and 0.45, respectively, in the fitting and validation samples. The other R^2 values displayed in Table 1 reflect how well each respective lower-order factor is a measure of its corresponding higher-order factor. These values, which reflect corrections for measurement error, are quite high (range: 0.56–1.00).

Table 2 shows the findings for tests of generalizability of parameters across fitting and validation samples. With respect to the parameters

Table 1. Summary of Key Parameter Estimates and R^2 -Values for Fitting and Validation Samples.

Parameter (See Figure 2)	Fitting Sample ($N = 268$)		Validation Sample ($N = 189$)	
	Unstandardized	Standardized	Unstandardized	Standardized
$\beta_{1,8}$	1.00 ^a	0.79	1.00 ^a	0.76
$\beta_{2,8}$	0.68 (0.03) ^b	0.86	0.68 (0.03)	0.78
$\beta_{3,8}$	0.60 (0.06)	0.55	0.60 (0.06)	0.51
$\beta_{4,9}$	1.00 ^a	0.74	1.00 ^a	0.77
$\beta_{5,9}$	0.70 (0.07)	0.53	0.70 (0.07)	0.50
$\beta_{6,9}$	0.92 (0.06)	0.96	0.92 (0.06)	0.92
$\beta_{7,9}$	0.69 (0.05)	0.76	0.69 (0.05)	0.66
$\beta_{8,10}$	1.00 ^a	1.00	1.00 ^a	1.00
$\beta_{9,10}$	0.80 (0.05)	0.96	0.80 (0.05)	0.96
$\beta_{11,10}$	<u>0.37 (0.03)</u>	0.71	<u>0.37 (0.03)</u>	0.73
$\beta_{12,11}$	1.00 ^a	0.89	1.00 ^a	0.82
$\beta_{13,11}$	0.91 (0.07)	0.87	0.91 (0.07)	0.84
$\beta_{14,11}$	0.84 (0.06)	0.77	0.84 (0.06)	0.81
$\beta_{15,11}$	<u>-0.47 (0.08)</u>	<u>-0.44</u>	<u>-0.86 (0.11)</u>	<u>-0.67</u>
$\beta_{16,15}$	1.00 ^a	0.89	1.00 ^a	0.97
$\beta_{17,15}$	0.87 (0.10)	0.75	0.87 (0.10)	0.78
R^2 for embarrassment		1.00	1.00	
R^2 for shame		0.91	0.91	
R^2 for protective actions		<u>0.50</u>	<u>0.53</u>	
R^2 for performance outcomes		<u>0.19</u>	<u>0.45</u>	
R^2 for sales interaction		0.79	0.94	
R^2 for sales volume		0.56	0.61	

^aParameters fixed to 1.00 for purposes of scaling.

^bStandard errors in parentheses.

that reflect how well the observed variables measure first-order latent variables and how well the higher-order factors are measured by lower-order factors, it can be seen that first-order factor loadings are invariant ($\chi^2_{\text{d}}(12) = 8.95, p > 0.70$), factor loadings between first- and second-order factors are invariant ($\chi^2_{\text{d}}(8) = 10.36, p > 0.23$), and factor loadings between second- and third-order factors are invariant ($\chi^2_{\text{d}}(1) = 3.24, p > 0.05$). In addition, the impact of self-conscious emotions on protective actions is the same for the fitting and validation samples ($\chi^2_{\text{d}}(1) = 0.39, p > 0.60$). The effect of protective actions on performance is greater in the validation sample than fitting sample ($\chi^2_{\text{d}}(1) = 7.75, p < 0.001$), although both are negative and significant, as hypothesized.

Test of Model in Figure 2 for Prospecting and Relationship Samples

Recall that it was hypothesized that salespeople who focus on prospecting should be more self-conscious and experience greater protective ef-

Table 2. Goodness-of-Fit and Invariance Tests for Fitting and Validation Samples.

Model	Goodness-of-Fit	Chi-Square Difference Test
Baseline	$\chi^2 (474) = 845.25$ $p \cong .00$ RMSEA = 0.04 NNFI = 0.94 CFI = 0.94	
Factor loadings invariant	$\chi^2 (486) = 854.20$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (12) = 8.95$ $p > .70$ Therefore, factor loadings invariant
Factor loadings and betas between first and second-order factors invariant	$\chi^2 (494) = 864.56$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (8) = 10.36$ $p > .23$ Therefore, betas between first- and second-order factors invariant
Factor loadings, betas between first- and second-order factors, and beta between second- and third-order self-consciousness emotions (i.e., $\beta_{9,10}$) invariant	$\chi^2 (495) = 867.80$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (1) = 3.24$ $p > .05$ Therefore, $\beta_{9,10}$ invariant
Factor loadings, betas between first- and second-order factors, beta between second- and third-order self-consciousness emotions, and beta from third-order self-consciousness factor to protective actions (i.e., $\beta_{11,10}$) invariant	$\chi^2 (496) = 868.19$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (1) = .39$ $p > .60$ Therefore, $\beta_{11,10}$ invariant
Factor loadings, betas between first- and second-order factors, beta between second- and third-order self-consciousness emotions, beta from third-order self-consciousness factor to protective actions, and beta from protective actions and performance outcomes (i.e., $\beta_{15,11}$) invariant	$\chi^2 (497) = 875.94$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (1) = 7.75$ $p < .001$ Therefore, $\beta_{15,11}$ not invariant

forts than salespeople who focus primarily on existing customers. As expected, the baseline multiple sample analysis reveals that, although the chi-square test is significant (i.e., $\chi^2 (474) = 891.58, p \cong 0.00$), the remaining three goodness-of-fit indicators suggest that the prospecting

Table 3. Summary of Key Parameter Estimates and R^2 -Values for Prospecting and Relationship Sales Encounter Samples.

Parameter (See Figure 2)	Transaction Sellers ($N = 194$)		Relationship Sellers ($N = 250$)	
	Unstandardized	Standardized	Unstandardized	Standardized
$\beta_{1,8}$	1.00 ^a	0.79	1.00 ^a	0.78
$\beta_{2,8}$	0.68 (0.03) ^b	0.87	0.68 (0.03)	0.78
$\beta_{3,8}$	0.60 (0.06)	0.56	0.60 (0.06)	0.51
$\beta_{4,9}$	1.00 ^a	0.76	1.00 ^a	0.75
$\beta_{5,9}$	0.70 (0.07)	0.49	0.70 (0.07)	0.55
$\beta_{6,9}$	0.89 (0.06)	0.93	0.89 (0.06)	0.93
$\beta_{7,9}$	0.70 (0.05)	0.83	0.70 (0.05)	0.68
$\beta_{8,10}$	1.00 ^a	0.96	1.00 ^a	1.00
$\beta_{9,10}$	0.82 (0.05)	0.97	0.82 (0.05)	0.96
$\beta_{11,10}$	<u>0.49 (0.04)</u>	<u>0.85</u>	<u>0.28 (0.03)</u>	<u>0.60</u>
$\beta_{12,11}$	1.00 ^a	0.86	1.00 ^a	0.86
$\beta_{13,11}$	0.91 (0.07)	0.83	0.91 (0.07)	0.90
$\beta_{14,11}$	0.90 (0.06)	0.84	0.90 (0.06)	0.78
$\beta_{15,11}$	<u>-0.61 (0.07)</u>	<u>-0.59</u>	<u>-0.61 (0.07)</u>	<u>-0.45</u>
$\beta_{16,15}$	1.00 ^a	0.94	1.00 ^a	0.94
$\beta_{17,15}$	0.83 (0.10)	0.74	0.83 (0.10)	0.76
R^2 for embarrassment		0.91	1.00	
R^2 for shame		0.94	0.91	
R^2 for protective actions		<u>0.72</u>	<u>0.35</u>	
R^2 for performance outcomes		<u>0.35</u>	<u>0.21</u>	
R^2 for sales interaction		0.88	0.89	
R^2 for sales volume		0.54	0.58	

^aParameters fixed to 1.00 for purposes of scaling.

^bStandard errors in parentheses.

and relationship selling sample data both correspond well to the model in Figure 2: RMSEA = 0.04, NNFI = 0.93, and CFI = 0.94.

Table 3 shows the structural parameter estimates and R^2 values. It can be seen that the first-, and second-, and third-order factor loadings are all relatively high in magnitude and statistically significant. This supports the proposition that the proposed indicators of the factors implied by the hierarchical structure are good measures of their hypothesized latent variables. Next, notice that SC emotions have significant positive effects on protective actions in the transaction ($\beta_{11,10} = 0.49$, s.e. = 0.04, $\beta_{11,10}^{\text{std}} = 0.85$) and relationship ($\beta_{11,10} = 0.28$, s.e. = 0.03, $\beta_{11,10}^{\text{std}} = 0.60$) samples, as predicted. Similarly, protective actions lead to decrements in performance in the transaction ($\beta_{15,11} = -0.61$, s.e. = 0.07, $\beta_{15,11}^{\text{std}} = -0.59$) and relationship ($\beta_{15,11} = -0.61$, s.e. = 0.07, $\beta_{15,11}^{\text{std}} = -0.45$) samples, as forecast. The explained variances in protective actions were 0.72 and 0.35, respectively, in the prospecting and relationship samples; while the explained variances in performance

were 0.35 and 0.21, respectively, in the transaction and relationship samples. The remaining R^2 values displayed in Table 3 are quite high (range: 0.54–1.00). These latter values reflect how well each respective lower-order factor is a measure of its corresponding higher-order factor.

Table 4 presents the results for tests of generalizability of parameters across prospecting and relationship samples. With regard to the parameters that reflect how well the observed variables measure first-order

Table 4. Goodness-of-Fit and Invariance Tests for Prospecting and Relationship Sales Encounter Samples.

Model	Goodness-of-Fit	Chi-Square Difference Test
Baseline	$\chi^2 (474) = 891.58$ $p \cong 0.00$ RMSEA = 0.04 NNFI = 0.93 CFI = 0.94	
Factor loadings invariant	$\chi^2 (486) = 899.70$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (12) = 8.12$ $p > .75$ Therefore, factor loadings invariant
Factor loadings and betas between first and second-order factors invariant	$\chi^2 (494) = 911.14$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (8) = 11.45$ $p > .15$ Therefore, betas between first- and second-order factors invariant
Factor loadings, betas between first- and second-order factors, and beta between second- and third-order self-consciousness emotions (i.e., $\beta_{9,10}$) invariant	$\chi^2 (495) = 914.79$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (1) = 3.64$ $p > .05$ Therefore, $\beta_{9,10}$ invariant
Factor loadings, betas between first- and second-order factors, beta between second- and third-order self-consciousness emotions, and beta from third-order self-consciousness factor to protective actions (i.e., $\beta_{11,10}$) invariant	$\chi^2 (496) = 930.55$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (1) = 15.77$ $p < .001$ Therefore, $\beta_{11,10}$ not invariant
Factor loadings, betas between first- and second-order factors, beta between second- and third-order self-consciousness emotions, and beta from protective actions and performance outcomes (i.e., $\beta_{15,11}$) invariant	$\chi^2 (496) = 914.81$ $p \cong .00$	$\chi^2_d (1) = .02$ $p > .95$ Therefore, $\beta_{15,11}$ invariant

latent variables and how well the higher-order factors are measured by lower-order factors, it is found that first-order factor loadings are invariant ($\chi^2_{df}(12) = 8.12, p > 0.75$), factor loadings between first- and second-order factors are invariant ($\chi^2_{df}(8) = 11.45, p > 0.15$), and factor loadings between second- and third-order factors are invariant ($\chi^2_{df}(1) = 3.64, p > 0.05$). In addition, the impact of self-conscious emotions on protective actions is greater for prospecting than relationship sellers, as hypothesized ($\chi^2_{df}(1) = 15.77, p < 0.001$). The effect of protective actions on performance is the same for the prospecting and relationship sellers ($\chi^2_{df}(1) = 0.02, p > 0.95$).

DISCUSSION

Psychologists have investigated the role that self-conscious emotions play for individual people across all walks of life and within such everyday settings as families and communities (e.g., Tangney & Fischer, 1995). However, very little if any research has studied SC emotions in personal selling. This study focused on two SC emotions, namely, shame and embarrassment. Shame occurs when one fails to live up to an ideal (of oneself or another person), and another person whose approval is important to oneself judges this failure critically. Embarrassment is generated either when the self does something inappropriate in public or the other with whom one interacts does something inappropriate, but in contrast to shame, the threat under embarrassment is less fundamental and involves seemingly trivial and even humorous behaviors (e.g., passing gas with strong olfactory qualities while in a sales negotiation). Nevertheless, because embarrassing actions can disrupt a sales encounter and negatively affect its outcome, protective actions are as likely with embarrassment as they are with shame.

The opportunities for incidents of embarrassment and shame are especially great in sales interactions because salespeople and customers, by definition, come from different organizations with different expectations and backgrounds. Moreover, as organizations respond to societal imperatives for increasing diversity, where employees are hired across wider age, gender, ethnic, racial, religious, sexual orientation, national, social class, and other boundaries, the likelihood of shame and embarrassment inducing discontinuities occurring are greater still. These differences are likely also to affect how salespeople look at themselves (asking, for example, "Am I dressed appropriately?" "Did I say the right/wrong things?" "Was I sensitive/insensitive to the customer?") and their customers (asking, for instance, "How does the customer prefer to be addressed and treated?" "Does the customer have particular needs or constraints to which I should adjust?" "Should I adopt a posture of deference or egalitarianism towards the customer?" "How does the customer evaluate me?").

Complicating the selling situation is the prevalent social custom of not always acknowledging, or at least verbally expressing, to the other person in a sales encounter that a standard of conduct has been violated (Soldow & Thomas, 1984). As a consequence, salespeople need a certain degree of emotional intelligence to be able to detect and respond appropriately to nonverbal signals that convey disapproval (Goleman, 1995). In the current study, it was found that, to the extent that shame and embarrassment occur, the enactment of protective actions increases to cope with these SC emotions. The introduction of the study of two SC emotions (shame and embarrassment) in boundary-spanning situations and their effects on protective actions constitute the first contribution of this research about SC emotions in the sales area.

The second contribution of this research showed that the type of selling situation (prospecting versus relationship-oriented selling) affects the adaptive resources of salespeople, once they experience SC emotions. Indeed, the results demonstrated that salespeople have fewer adaptive resources when they are engaged in prospecting activities than when they are maintaining long-term relationships with customers. Under prospecting, perceived uncertainty in customers heightens the fear of anticipated shame and embarrassment in salespeople and thus leads to greater implementation of protective actions in comparison to relationship building, where customer uncertainty is less.

A key finding in the study is that protective actions in response to the experience of SC emotions actually negatively impact performance. Avoidance behaviors not only lead to reduced opportunities for interaction and disruption of ongoing interactions but can induce negative evaluations of salespersons by customers. This harms performance. This is the third contribution of this study. A question that this finding suggests is can SC emotions be controlled and, if so, how?

One way that SC emotions might be controlled is directly by the person experiencing them. LeDoux (1996) shows that the function of emotions—actually he uses anxiety as his prototypical example—in memory occurs through two systems. Exposure to an emotionally eliciting situation leads to automatic processes in the amygdala in the brain, which stimulates emotional responses (e.g., arousal and activation of the autonomic nervous system, viscera, and muscles). Exposure to an emotionally eliciting situation also activates the hippocampal system via the amygdala and cortex of the brain. A person's implicit memory for emotions is believed to be mediated primarily by the amygdala, whereas a person's explicit, declarative memory about emotional experience is mediated largely by the hippocampus. People become consciously aware of their emotions through hippocampal processes and through processes in working memory that receive information about one's state of emotional arousal. Once a person experiences shame or embarrassment, he or she involuntarily reacts with protective actions (e.g., by averting eye contact, blushing, falling silent). At the same time,

the person feels urges to act purposively in protective ways (e.g., to leave the situation, apologize, refrain from closing a deal, continue inappropriately with preplanned actions).

Two types of self-regulatory selling strategies might be investigated in the future to short-circuit the negative effects of SC emotions. With respect to automatic or involuntary protective actions, the person cannot prevent these, but he or she can at least preplan effective counteractions to take, once the protective responses occur (Beck & Emery, 1985; Erdelyi, 1992; Miller, 1996). Through training, role playing, and practice, salespeople can learn to respond in ways that bring the sales interaction back to a functional and objective exchange of information and away from the disruption of inappropriate and self-defeating behaviors. When a salesperson experiences shame or embarrassment, he or she can learn first to reject accepting the self-attribution that one is a bad person; second to conclude that the embarrassing event is a natural human response and that one can choose to ignore or respond to the specific SC emotional event, depending on the circumstances; and third to react with an appropriate response from a repertoire of preconsidered and practiced alternatives. With regard to felt urges generated in response to SC emotional reactions, salespeople can learn to (a) overcome resistance and inhibitions to acting in their own interests and (b) execute verbal tactics promoting the sales interaction that deflect attention away from the shameful or embarrassing events, or at least mitigate their effects. In both of the above cases, salespeople can work to enhance their awareness of their own emotions, protective actions and urges, and contingencies underlying countermeasures, and to preplan the implementation of corrective actions.

A third self-regulatory strategy might entail either avoiding self-triggered outcomes that would lead to SC emotions or avoiding situations that increase the likelihood of embarrassing or shameful occurrences. Examples of the former might include expunging the tendency within oneself to be negative, tell off-color jokes, make sexist remarks, or boast. Examples of the latter might entail avoiding drinking alcoholic beverages at lunches, conducting business in nonprofessional environments (e.g., nightclubs), or carrying a cellular phone with an audible ringer.

Sales managers, too, can help regulate the negative effects of SC emotions and protective actions. In addition to training salespeople to be aware of how they and their customers generate embarrassing and shame-inducing events and how the salesperson should avoid these or deal with them once they occur, sales managers should make an effort to assign salespeople to clients where the chances for misunderstandings and differences in values are less likely to occur. This may be possible in only rare instances, depending on the nature of the sales force and customers. Perhaps, also, efforts should be made to hire salespeople who are less prone to experience embarrassment or shame or at least are able to cope well with embarrassment and shame when they occur.

Management should also make known its policies on sensitive issues and convey these to potential customers so that surprises that might induce SC emotions are less likely to happen. Research is needed into self-regulatory and managerial mechanisms for controlling SC emotions and protective actions and how to deal with these, once they transpire.

In the long run, it would not be a good idea for managers and salespeople to strive to completely eliminate the opportunities for the occurrence of embarrassment and shame. Embarrassment and shame are natural human reactions to threatening situations and may even be functional for the organization when occurring at low levels or at less critical times during sales interactions (e.g., Barret, 1995). Customers may even come to respect and identify with a salesperson who is able, for example, to laugh at his or her own foibles or gaffes. In the case of embarrassment, Miller (1996) recommends that an offender do nothing about minor infractions and feel free to laugh with the person or persons one interacts with, especially if the others laugh first.

Future research needs to be done to establish at what levels of shame and embarrassment dysfunctional protective actions occur. Research is needed, too, into what self-regulatory processes are effective, once protective actions occur.

SC emotions were measured directly in the present study by asking salespeople to make appraisals of the selling situation in terms of their core self (shame) and presented self (embarrassment). Shame and embarrassment were modeled as multidimensional constructs and were found to reflect a higher-order latent SC emotions factor. This is reasonable at one level of abstraction in that shame and embarrassment (a) both involve a confrontation between images of oneself with actual or perceived criticisms by the customer of the salesperson, (b) both entail unpleasant and avoidance reactions (as implied, for example, by circumplex models of emotion), and (c) both accompany activation of the sympathetic and parasympathetic nervous systems. This results in relatively high correlations among measures of shame and embarrassment, and lends itself to modeling by higher-order factors. It should be acknowledged, however, that this approach is only a first step in uncovering SC emotions, and future research should investigate the sequences of subprocesses that comprise SC emotions. For example, reactions of shame and embarrassment may reinforce each other; salespeople are likely to ruminate on their emotional reactions over time and develop feelings of regret, anger, and lower self-esteem; and under certain conditions it is possible that shame and embarrassment might operate independently. These, too, are worthy topics for future inquiry.

In this study, the focus was on SC emotions in salespeople that stem from relationships with customers. SC emotions might also be expected to result from interactions with other salespeople, sales managers, friends, and family members. Other negative SC emotions, such as envy, guilt, regret, and shyness, might be important, too. Likewise, positive

SC emotions (e.g., pride, empathy) might be important. All these possibilities deserve further study.

Finally, the shame and embarrassment responses and their behavioral consequences had negative correlations with performance. Although the researchers refrain from using causal language, the model implicitly suggests that SC responses affect performance. Limiting scrutiny to the shame response, it is possible, though, that salespeople who have a low performance might experience more shame when with customers. This, however, would entail a different design as well as a more elaborate study of the shame response, specifically, shame responses in relation to the boss or colleagues. Recall that it has been suggested that shame responses are context sensitive (Barret, 1995); thus it is possible that salespeople who perform less well, will develop shame in response to colleagues and bosses, and consequently it would affect their shame response when confronted with customers. These questions should be studied in future research, as this article was intended to study the shame response when confronted with customers.

APPENDIX 1: SCALES IN THE STUDY*

Embarrassment (Physiological)

1. I blush
2. I cannot talk any further
3. I look away or glance up
4. I have got the feeling that I look a fool
5. I feel ridiculous
6. I feel stupid
7. I feel sheepish
8. I avert my eyes from the client
9. I fall silent

Embarrassment (Self)

10. The client discovers a mistake in my argumentation
11. I say something contradictory
12. I have forgotten the name of my client
13. I realize that I have bad breath
14. I have forgotten to take important data
15. I notice that a client does not catch on to a joke I made
16. I break wind
17. I ask something that the client experiences as too personal
18. I arrive late at the client's

Embarrassment (Other)

19. The client passes a dirty remark
20. The client remarks something about my profession
21. I notice that the client does not dare to say that he does not want to buy anything
22. I notice that the client is fumbling for words

Shame (Coping)

1. I would die of shame
2. I feel I would flinch all of a sudden
3. I feel very small

Shame (Physiological Reaction)

4. I feel somewhat weak
5. My head is spinning
6. I am dumbfounded
7. I notice that my voice gets lower
8. I start to laugh wickedly
9. I feel helpless
10. I feel my heart is beating slower

Shame (Core Self)

11. I believe that the client sees through me completely
12. I believe that the client thinks that deep down in my heart I am not a salesman
13. I believe that I am an unsuccessful person
14. I believe that the client does not take me seriously

Shame (Attention to Being Evaluated)

15. I believe that the client thinks that I cannot cope with my work
16. I believe that the client knows what I am feeling
17. I believe that the client takes in every detail
18. I have the feeling that I am being analyzed by the client
19. I believe that the client is keeping up with my physical movements
20. I believe that the client compares me to other salesmen

Protective Reactions (Formal and Informal)

1. I do not dare to try out different salesmanship
2. I obstinately keep on adhering to my own selling method, even if it fails
3. I do not dare to have a spontaneous chat
4. I do not dare put up with small talk in our sales conversations
5. I do not dare to ask after the private matters of the client

Protective Reactions (Expansion)

6. I do not dare to ask if the client wants to buy yet another article from our collection
7. I fear that the client does not want to buy the article that he wanted anymore
8. If I start to talk about other articles I do not dare to ask whoever else will be involved in the sale
9. I believe that the client will switch to the competition, if I want to sell a total package of articles
10. I fear that people will think "here he comes again"

Protective Reactions (New)

11. I believe that a salesman must not sell new articles to already existing clients, because this might disrupt the relationship
12. I am able to sell something to somebody, but I cannot sell a newly-developed product
13. I believe that satisfied clients do not need new articles
14. I do not think it proper to offer an overall package of articles

Sales Volume (from Behrman & Perreault, 1985)

1. Producing a high market share for your company in your territory.
2. Making sales of those products with highest profits margins
3. Generating high level of dollar sales
4. Quickly generating sales of new company products
5. Identifying and selling to major accounts in your territory
6. Producing sales with long-term profitability
7. Exceeding all sales targets and objectives for your territory during the year.

8. Listening attentively to identify and understand the real concerns of your customer
9. Convincing customers that you understand their unique problems and concerns
10. Using established contacts to develop new customers
11. Communicating your sales presentation clearly and concisely
12. Working out solutions to a customer's questions or objections

These are English translations from the Dutch versions actually used in the study.

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